CHAPTER-II

ARTHĀPATTI IN BHĀṬṬA MĪMĀṀSĀ SCHOOL

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2.1 Relevance of Mīmāṁsā School:

Now-a-days, the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school is so much ignored, neglected, and disregarded like the 'belles-letter' as this school mostly emphasized on rituals as prescribed by the *Veda*-s. One of the salient features of this school is that the advocates of this school maintain that God, the Supreme Conscious Being, is not necessary for explaining the Universe. The other salient feature of the school is that out of three branches of the *Veda*, viz. *karma*, *upāsanā,* and *jñāna* which again may be reduced to mainly two branches (*kāṇda*) of the *Veda* viz. *karmakāṇda* and *jñānakāṇda* as *upāsanā* is included into *jñāna*, the Mīmāṁsā school emphasizes on *karmakāṇda.*

Indian philosophy in general except the Cārvāka school is regarded as liberation centric. Now a question arises whether liberation is attained through *jñāna* or *karma* or both. There are mainly two types of schools found in Indian tradition regarding whether *jñāna* or *karma* is the means for attaining liberation. Nyāya, Sāṁkhya, and Advaita Vedānta schools are accepted *jñāna* as a means to attain liberation. Whereas, the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school has accepted *karma* as a means to attain liberation. However, some are of the opinion that both *jñāna* and *karma* are necessary to attain liberation. So, a critical reflection is needed in this regard. This can be explained as follows.

All of the Indian philosophical schools except the Cārvāka, accept liberation (*mokṣa*) as our ultimate goal. The four sorts of the monastery (*āśrama*) viz. *brahmacarya*, *gārhasthya*, *vāṇaprastha*, and *sannyāsa* are accepted in the *Vedic* socio-culture. Here, all individual beings in human society practice all the duties according to the respective *āśrama*'s and ultimately attain liberation. Now, it is essential to point out that human beings start from *karma,* and cessation of suffering is possible due to *pramā*, i.e., valid cognition. However, someone may say that Vedānta

school is for the wise person and *karmakāṇda*, i.e., Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school is for the ordinary people. However, the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā philosophy is necessary for the sake of the cognition of the *Veda*, because Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā fulfills the anticipated judgment of the *Veda*. Thus, Kumārila Bhaṭṭa says, "*itikartavyatājñānam mīmāṁsā pūrayiṣyati*". The view shows that both *jñāna* and *karma* are necessary to attain liberation. Hence, in this disharmony era, the necessity of the cognition of the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school is highly relevant.

2.2 *Māna* and *Meya*:

All the Indian philosophers, except Mādyamika school, accept that the cognition of an object depends on the instrument of valid cognition (*mānādhīnā meyasiddhiḥ*), and hence they deal with the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) at first. Here, the word '*māna*' denotes cognition and '*meya*' denotes the object of cognition. We, human beings, should adequately know objects to understand the necessity of their importance in our life. If we know the objects correctly, then we can distinguish between different types of objects and their respective necessity in our life.

All of the *mokṣavādī* schools accept that *ātma jñāna* (self-cognition) is the way to attain liberation. This *ātma jñāna* (self-cognition) is possible through the help of the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) as *prameya* can be known through *pramāṇa*, i.e., the instrument of valid cognition. So, the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) helps us to know the self properly and after that, the person can differentiate self from other objects. Through an instrument of valid cognition, one may know the object correctly and whether the objects are necessary for his/her life or not. In this way by controlling unsound desires, one can discover one's own self. Our ultimate goal is to remove suffering, and this can be possible only through the proper cognition of the self. After self-cognition (*ātma jñāna*), liberation is possible. Self-cognition (*ātma jñāna*) is possible through the cognition of self as such. Now, the question comes what is meant by the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*)? In this regard, the discussion of the instrument of valid cognition is necessary.

2.3 *Lakṣaṇa and Pramāṇa*:

Lakṣaṇa and *pramāṇa* are the accredited roots for determining the existence of objects[88]. First, determination of the existence of an object is possibly through *pramāṇa,* and subsequently, we know the nature of the object specifically through *lakṣaṇa*. So, it is necessary to discuss the instrument of valid cognition, i.e., *pramāṇa*. Different Indian philosophers have discussed different sorts of *pramāṇa* to establish their metaphysical viewpoints. Apart from the Nyāya accepted four *pramāṇa*-s, i.e., *pratyakṣa*, *anumāna*, *upamāna,* and *śabda* the Mīmāṁsakas (Bhāṭṭa and Prābhākara) and Advaita Vedāntins accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) as a source of valid cognition. So, the question comes what do we mean by *arthāpatti* (presumption)? In the present chapter, the discussion is restricted to the view of Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā school, a sect of Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā, on *arthāpatti* (presumption).

2.4 Etymological meaning of *Arthāpatti*:

The term *arthāpatti* (presumption) denotes both the *pramāṇa* and *pramā*. Etymologically the term '*arthāpatti*' is referred to *pramāṇa* and *pramā* both. However, according to the *samāsa* (a kind of Sanskrit Grammar), the term '*arthāpatti*' is analyzed differently to *arthāpatti pramāṇa* and *arthāpatti pramā.* '*Arthasya āpattiḥ yasmāt*' - here the etymological meaning of it implies the term '*arthāpatti*' as a *pramāṇa* used by *bahuvrīhi samāsa*. '*Arthasya āpattiḥ arthāpattiḥ*' - here the etymological meaning of it indicates the term '*arthāpatti*' as a *pramā* through *ṣaṣṭhi-tatpuruṣa samāsa*. The word '*arthāpatti*' is derived from the words '*artha*' and '*āpatti*'. The meaning of '*artha*' is the real object (fact), and '*āpatti*' means imagination (*kalpanā*). *Arthāpatti* is an assumption of something to resolve a contradiction.

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[88] "*lakṣaṇapramāṇābhyāṁ hi vastusiddhiḥ*".

2.5 Murārī Miśra's view on *Arthāpatti*:

It is important to point out that there has another school of Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school, i.e., the school of Murārī. Murārī Miśra is the exponent of this school. There are two books of Murārī Miśra that are also almost out of reach, viz., *Tripādinītinayaṇam* (*Arthavādādhikaraṇa*, *Maṇtrādhikaraṇa*, and *Smṛtyadhikaraṇa*), and *Ekādaśādyādhikaraṇam*. Murārī Miśra's concept on the instrument of valid cognition is similar to the Bhāṭṭa views.[89] Actually, we cannot find any clear view regarding epistemology in these books in detail. There is no definition on *arthāpatti* in any of the texts by Murārī Miśra. In spite of that, some expressions, those are used in these two books, can give us a clue on the concept of *arthāpatti* such as *arthāt* (implication), *ākṣipati* (implies), and *ākṣepa* (implication). Later on, we can see that such types of concepts have been associated with the concept of *arthāpatti*. More or less, we cannot find any concept of *arthāpatti* in detail after the Miśra school of Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school.[90] That is why we have emphasized the view of the other two schools of Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā, viz., Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā and Prābhākara Mīmāṁsā in this thesis.

2.6 Śabara's view on *Arthāpatti*:

Śabara, the commentator of *Mīmāṁsā-Sūtra*, defines *arthāpatti* as the assumption of something which is seen on the ground that a fact already perceived or heard would not be possible without that is called *arthāpatti* (presumption); for instance, it is found that Devadatta who is alive is not in the house, and this non-existence inside the house leads to the presumption that he is somewhere outside the house.[91] By the term '*dṛṣṭaḥ śruto vā*', this definition of *arthāpatti* (presumption)

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[89] Panse, Ujjwala. *A Reconstruction of the Third School of Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā*, Ph. D. Thesis, The University of Poona, Poona, 1985, p. 71

[90] Ibid., pp. 83-84.

[91] "*arthāpattirapi dṛṣṭaḥ śruto vā artho'anyathā nopapadyate ityarthakalpanā. yathā jībati Devadatte gṛhābhāvadarśanena vahirbhāvsyādṛṣṭasya kalpanā*." *Mīmāṁsā-Sūtra-Bhāṣya*:1-1-5.

implies that there are two sorts of *arthāpatti* (presumption) viz. *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* and *śrutārthāpatti*. Though there is a controversy between the Bhāṭṭa and the Prābhākara of Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school as both schools explain Śabara's concept of *arthāpatti* based on a single example given by him. This controversy can be illustrated in this chapter later on. The main issues are about the notion of inconsistency and the application of inconsistency to gain real cognition of something.

2.7 Kumārila Bhaṭṭa's view on *Arthāpatti*:

Kumārila Bhaṭṭa describes *arthāpatti* (presumption), in his *Ślokavārttika*, as that which is assumed through remembrance or *śruti* and accepted the non-existent of meaning through the *liṇg.* The entailment of such a result is not possible without *arthāpatti*, because of the possibility of something which is not entailed by perception, inference, comparison, testimony, etc., but such type of entailment is also illustrious (*prasiddha*). Therefore, this kind of entailment is isolated with perception, etc., but they are accepted for illustriousness through reason. This type of assumption is called *arthāpatti* (presumption). In *Ślokavārttika*, Kumārila Bhaṭṭa says,

"*smṛtyā śrutiryyā parikalpyate asmin*

liṇgādibhiryā viniyojikā ca.

falādibhirmat paripūraṇaṁ ca

sambandhadṛk tatra na kācidasti.

tat sarvamityādyasamañjasaṁ syāt

na cediyaṁ syādanumānataḥ anyā."[92]

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[92] *Ślokavārttika*, *Arthāpatti pariccheda*, *Kārikā*: 88.

2.8 Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa's view on *Arthāpatti*:

Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa in his *Mānameyodaya* says that whereas something is otherwise unintelligible, the assumption of what will make it intelligible is *arthāpatti* (presumption): this alone is the definition as given in the *Śabara-Bhāṣya*.[93] When it is known that Devadatta is alive, but he is not at home, then some inconsistency arises. This inconsistency can be resolved if we assume that he is outside. This type of assumption is called *arthāpatti* (presumption). Actually, the conflict between two instruments of valid cognition is called *arthāpatti*. Here, two instruments of valid cognition are: one is the general instrument of valid cognition, and another is the specific instrument of valid cognition. When something is assumed to the removal of such type of conflict that is called *arthāpatti*.

In the preceding example, Devadatta is alive is known by the general instrument of valid cognition, i.e., inference (*anumāna*), and the absence of Devadatta at home is known by the specific instrument of valid cognition, i.e., non-apprehension (*anupalabdhi*). Devadatta's aliveness is general in the sense that there is no specific place where Devadatta exists. Here, 'exist' means either in the house or outside of the home. However, his absence in the home is known through the non-apprehension. In that situation, the conflict between inference and non-apprehension leads to the presumption that Devadatta is outside the house. Here apparent conflict between two sources of cognition is resolved by this *arthāpatti* (presumption).

The uncommon causal condition for the cognition of *arthāpatti* (presumption) is the conflict between two instruments of valid cognition. Though, the two instruments of valid cognition are not specific because if they are specific, then reconciliation will be impossible. If it is stated that 'there is gold' and 'there is no gold', then in both the cases as mentioned above, the instrument of valid cognitions are specific and hence irreconcilable. Therefore, one instrument of valid cognition must be general, and the other is specific for the case of *arthāpatti* (presumption).

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[93] "*anyathānupapattyā yadupapādakakalpanam / tadarthāpattirityevaṁ lakṣaṇaṁ Bhāṣyabhāṣitam*." *Mānameyodaya*: 56-35-1, p. 195.

Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa says, the cognition to remove the conflict between two instruments of valid cognition is called *arthāpatti* (presumption).

2.9 *Karaṇa* of *Arthāpatti*:

According to Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas, the *karaṇa* (instrument) of such an *arthāpatti* (presumption) is the consciousness of an inner contradiction (*anupapatti*); and the result of the *arthāpatti* (presumption) is the resolution of this contradiction (*upapatti*). Now it is time for the observation that which definition of the instrument of valid cognition (*karaṇa*) is suitable for the cognition of *arthāpatti* (presumption) as per the discussion in section 1.5. Bhāṭṭas only says that "*pramākaraṇamevātra pramāṇaṁ tarkapakṣavat*,", i.e., they accept the view of Nyāya regarding the instrument of valid cognition (*karaṇa*). However, now a question arises which definition of the instrument of valid cognition (*karaṇa*) is consistent with the cognition of *arthāpatti* (presumption)? Śabara's definition of *arthāpatti* indicates that the instrument of such cognition is the inner contradiction of two facts (*anupapatti*), and the result is the resolution of this contradiction (*upapatti*). Let us explain with an example: When it is known that Devadatta is alive, but he is not at home, then some inconsistency (*anupapatti*) arises. The resolution of this inconsistency is possible if we assume that he is outside (*upapatti*). If we critically analyze the definition of *arthāpatti* (presumption) as well as the preceding example, we may see that there is no intermediate cause (*vyāpāra*) between *anupapatti* and *upapatti*. That is why we are not able to accept any intermediate cause (*vyāpāra*) for the cognition of *arthāpatti* (presumption). So, the applicable definition of *karaṇa* here in *arthāpatti* is "*phalājoga-vyāvacchinnaṁ kāraṇam karaṇam*".

Again, a question arises regarding the status of the instrumental cause (*karaṇa*) of *arthāpatti* (presumption). That is, whether the instrumental cause (*karaṇa*) of *arthāpatti* (presumption) is an independent and separate one or it can be reduced into another instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*). This question arises because the Nyāya school accepts the cognition of *arthāpatti* (presumption), but it has reduced its instrumental cause into inference (*kevala-vyātirekī* inference).

Through the following arguments, the Nyāya view can be refuted. In an *anumāna* (inference), there is no element of conflict, but in *arthāpatti* (presumption) there is the element of apparent conflict and inconsistency. *Arthāpatti* (presumption) starts its journey from the very conflict of a known fact. This is not true in the case of inference. Inference starts its journey with the cognition of the probans (*liṅga*) in the subject (*pakṣa*). Besides this, the very aim of the journey of presumption is to resolve the conflict in question. However, inference aims to reach the cognition of the probandum (*sādhya*). D. M. Datta has rightly said,

> "Inference and postulation [presumption] – anumāna and arthapātti [*arthāpatti*] – are two opposite, and yet complementary processes. The first tries to find out what *follows* from given premises, whereas the second tries to find out what is *presupposed* by the given and explains the given by showing its grounds".[94]

There is also another fundamental difference between the process of *anumāna* (inference) and the process of *arthāpatti* (presumption). In the case of inference, the uncommon cause (*karaṇa*) is the combination of two cognitions, the cognition of the probans and the cognition of the probandum, which is technically called *parāmarśa*, i.e., the confirmatory cognition. In *parāmarśa*, the two cognitions, i.e., the cognition of the probans is so closely related to the cognition of the probandum that the latter can necessarily be deduced from the former one. In the stock example of inference (*anumāna*) given by the Nyāya school, the cognition of smoke is necessarily related to the cognition of fire, and that is why the cognition of fire can necessarily be deduced from the cognition of smoke. However, this is not true in the case of *arthāpatti* (presumption). In *arthāpatti*, the cognition which stands for the un-common cause (*karaṇa*) is the cognition of the apparent conflict between two facts. In the earlier example of *arthāpatti*, the two facts between which conflict arises are the cognition that Devadatta is alive and the cognition that he is absent at home, but the relationship between these two facts are not necessary like the relationship seen between the cognition of smoke and the cognition of fire.

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[94] Datta, D. M. *The Six Ways of Knowing*, University of Calcutta, Kolkata, 2014, p. 206.

Consequently, one cannot necessarily be deduced from another. Say, for example, from the cognition of the fact that Devadatta is alive, we cannot necessarily come to the cognition that he is absent at home. Again, from the cognition that Devadatta is absent at home, we cannot necessarily conclude that Devadatta is alive. Thus, it is seen that the nature of *karaṇa* in inference (*anumāna*) is fundamentally different from the nature of *karaṇa* in *arthāpatti* (presumption); and we know that another name of *karaṇa* is *pramāṇa* (instrument of valid cognition). So, the very question of reducing *arthāpatti* (presumption) into *anumāna* (inference) does not arise at all. But if we go through Gaṅgeśa views on this issue, then it can be understood that the refutation of the Nyāya view is not as simple as it appears to be. Gaṅgeśa in his *Tattvacintāmaṇi* discussed *arthāpatti* in *Arthāpattiprakaraṇa*, where he refutes *arthāpatti* as an independent instrument of valid cognition. This discussion has been placed in Chapter V of this thesis critically.

2.10 Apparent Confliction:

Again, let us go back to the discussion on *arthāpatti* (presumption) as stated by the Bhāṭṭas. Here, it is worthy to note that the conflict in the case of *arthāpatti* is apparent. If the conflict is a real one, then the resolution of such conflict is not possible. When someone perceives gold in a place from a distance, but when he goes closer, he finds that there is no gold. In such a case, the conflict is real between 'there is gold' and 'there is no gold', and this conflict can be removed only by assuming that one of the cognitions is false. Likewise, when someone says that 'there are trees on the river bank' and another person says that 'there is no tree on the river bank', here one sentence conflicts with the other. We cannot accept both of them as genuine. In such cases, the conflict is real, which can be resolved through the assumption that one is false. However, in the case of *arthāpatti* (presumption or implication), both cognitions are accurate. However, at the first moment, they appear as conflicting only because neither any one of the cognitions can be accepted nor rejected, nor can they be synthesized together. Therefore, the confliction in the case of *arthāpatti* (presumption) is apparent, not a real one.

2.11 Classification of *Arthāpatti*:

Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas have accepted two sorts of *arthāpatti* (presumption) following the definition of *arthāpatti* by Śabara, viz. *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* or presumption from what is seen and *śrutārthāpatti* or presumption from what is heard.[95] However, Śabara has given only one example of *arthāpatti* (presumption). As Śabara has given only one example, some philosophers are of the opinion that he has admitted only one kind of *arthāpatti* (presumption). However, this observation is not wise. From what he says in his *Bhāṣya* ('*dṛṣṭaḥ śruto vā*'), it is clear that he has admitted two kinds of *arthāpatti* (presumption). So, we can say Kumārila rightly understood this and clearly states that Śabara admits two kinds of *arthāpatti* (presumption) which are already mentioned. In the case of *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* the conflict is about a seen object, e.g., 'Stout Devadatta does not eat food during the day', and our assumption that 'Devadatta eats at night'. The word '*dṛṣṭa*' (seen) refers to all the five instruments of valid cognition viz. perception, inference, comparison, presumption, and non-apprehension. In the case of *śrutārthāpatti,* the conflict is about what is heard, e.g., 'one who desires heaven should perform the *agnihotra* sacrifice', and our assumption of '*apūrva*'.[96] The word '*śruto*' refers to the presumption of a word.

Here, the observation of Kumārila regarding *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* and *śrutārthāpatti* is that the assumption of meaning is from *dṛṣṭārthāpatti*, and the assumption of the sentence is from *śrutārthāpatti*. Kumārila mentions two sorts of *arthāpatti* (presumption) due to such distinctions. The cause of *śrutārthāpatti* is only verbal testimony (*śabda*), not any other instrument of valid cognition. Whatever is different from *śrutārthāpatti* is called *dṛṣṭārthāpatti,* and the cause of *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* is any instrument of valid cognition other than verbal testimony (*śabda*). As the Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas accept six sorts of instruments of valid cognition, so they accept five

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[95] *"dṛṣṭaḥ śruto vā".*

[96] When the sacrifice (*yajña*) is completed after the performance of sacrifice and after a long-time heaven is produced from that sacrifice. In this situation, sacrifice causes to the heaven through an intermediary cause (*vyāpāra*), i.e., *apūrva*.

(excluding verbal testimony) sorts of *dṛṣṭārthāpatti*. Thus, Kumārila has mentioned six sorts of *arthāpatti* (presumption) viz.

a) *Pratyakṣapūrvikā Arthāpatti* (based on perception),
b) *Anumānapūrvikā Arthāpatti* (based on inference),
c) *Upamānapūrvikā Arthāpatti* (based on comparison),
d) *Arthāpattipūrvikā Arthāpatti* (based on another presumption),
e) *Abhāvapūrvikā Arthāpatti* (based on non-apprehension), and
f) *Śrutārthāpatti* (based on verbal testimony).

2.11.1 *Pratyakṣapūrvikā Arthāpatti*:

The first sort of presumption is *pratyakṣapūrvikā arthāpatti* (based on perception). The *arthāpatti*, which depends on *pratyakṣa* (perception), is called *pratyakṣapūrvikā arthāpatti*. The *arthāpatti* (presumption) of burning power in the fire is an instance of such type of *arthāpatti*. In this case, the conflict or inconsistency is applied to a perceived fact. We perceive that fire burns things. According to Kumārila, this fact remains inexplicable without the assumption of burning power in the fire. Power is not a perceptible entity, and it is considered to be a category that is different from substance, quality, action, and universal. Though Kumārila does not show clearly what is meant by inexplicability, Sucaritā Miśra says that inexplicability consists in the inconsistency of the perceived fact with another instrument of valid cognition. Generally, perception reveals that fire is the cause of burning. However, fire does not burn things in presence of *candrakāntamaṇi*. In such cases, we must assume or imagine the power of fire due to their inconsistency. If this power exists, then fire must burn; but such power is destroyed in the presence of *candrakāntamaṇi*. So, the assumption of the burning power in fire is an example of presumption, which is based on perception (*pratyakṣapūrvikā*).

Here, some discussion on *śakti* (power/ potency) comes. Because *śakti* is accepted by different philosophers differently. Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika schools do not accept *śakti* as a separate category other than substance. They told that *śakti* can be known through inferential cognition. However, the Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā school accepts

śakti as a separate category. They are of the opinion that *śakti* can be known through *arthāpatti*. Therefore, there is a controversy among Indian philosophers regarding *śakti* as a distinct category, and also as the means of the cognition of *śakti*.

According to the Mīmāṁsakas, there are two sorts of *śakti* viz. *sahaja śakti* (innate potency) and *ādheya śakti* (acquired potency). The potency, which is produced along with the production of the object, is called *sahaja śakti* (innate potency). For instance, the burning potency of fire is called *sahaja śakti* (innate potency), because such types of potency (capacity of burning) are produced along with the production of fire. According to the *Pūrvapakṣī*, one should accept an innate quality in the fire by which fire is capable of burning other objects. This burning potency in fire remains intact unless and until there is any obstruction. However, the burning potency will not be activated if *candrakāntamaṇi* (a particular kind of gem that is taken as an obstruction) is present. It does burn when this particular kind of gem is absent. However, the fire may burn despite the presence of *candrakāntamaṇi* (a particular kind of gem) if there is *suryakāntamaṇi* (a particular kind of gem that is taken as a stimulant to burn). Therefore, according to the Mīmāṁsakas, one should accept the potency of burning in the fire, i.e., *śakti* as a separate category that is producible and destroyable along with the production of objects.

Again, the potentiality of an object which is acquired for some reason is/are called *ādheya śakti* (acquired potency). For instance, the lump of corn is purified by chanting *maṇtra* and becomes eligible for sacrifice. It cannot be purified if *maṇtra* is not chanted. Here through the utterance of the *maṇtra,* the lump of corn gets purified. So, one should accept the potentiality of the *maṇtra*. The *maṇtra* acquires the such type of potentiality which is called *ādheya śakti* (acquired potency).

Such type of *śakti* cannot be reduced to the substance as it resides both in quality as well as in action. The category which resides in quality, etc., cannot be reduced to the substance. Again, *śakti* cannot be reduced in quality or action as *śakti* resides in quality and action. But quality cannot reside in quality, and action cannot reside in action. *Śakti* again cannot be reduced to universal, inherence, or particular also as all these categories are eternal in nature but *śakti* cannot be eternal as it is producible and destroyable. *Śakti* is always reflected as a positive entity, and that is

why *śakti* cannot be reduced to absence also. For this reason, the Mīmāṁsakas accept *śakti* as a separate category. There are different views regarding the instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) of *śakti* among the Mīmāṁsakas. According to the Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas, *śakti* can be known through *arthāpatti* (presumption) and for Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas, it can be known through inferential cognition.

On the other hand, Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika schools do not accept *śakti* as a separate category. According to them, if *śakti* is accepted as a separate category, one has to accept infinite number of *śakti*-s. This can be explained through the example of fire. It is a well-known fact that objects are burnt by fire. However, the burning potentiality of fire is dependent on the object to be burnt. The burning potentiality of fire to a piece of paper and a heap of grass is different. Such type of difference can't be explained in general by assuming *śakti* in the fire. Such a type of difference can be explained only through the acceptance of different potentialities or *śakti*-es in the fire. But accepting numbers of *śakti*-es in fire will involve the problem of infinite regress. However, the explanation can be possible by accepting potentiality (*śakti*) as an auxiliary cause of the fire. It is unjustifiable to assume an infinite number of *śakti*-es. Therefore, the Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika schools accept burning potentiality in the fire as an auxiliary cause for the sake of logical economy (*lāghava*).

Here, we may substantiate the Mīmāṁsaka's view that *śakti* is a separate category. If the Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika schools accept *śakti* as an auxiliary cause of effect, one would be bound to accept different types of auxiliary causes of fire. The fact is that *śakti* operates differently according to the difference of the object to be operated. That operation is the same whether we accept *śakti* as either a separate category or a separate auxiliary cause. So, the question of an infinite number of *śakti*-es remained the same in either case. Furthermore, it is already seen that the locus of *śakti* to any category is not possible. That is why a logical economy (*lāghava*) is not always tenable if we have found a specific way that is far away from complexity.

2.11.2 *Anumānapūrvikā Arthāpatti*:

The second sort of presumption is *anumānapūrvikā arthāpatti* (based on inference), e.g., the assumption of the mobility of the Sun, based upon the fact of its movement from one place to another place, which is ascertained through Inference.[97] Generally, we see that living and moving objects possess organs such as limbs, and legs, but we do not find such organs in the case of the Sun. We see the Sun in different places in the sky, but we cannot see any organs of the Sun to prove the movement of the Sun. We infer the motion of the Sun from the fact that it changes its location in the sky. Such type of inference, i.e., the inference of mobility of the Sun, is not possible without the assumption of motion. As the presumption of the power of motion is taken place through inference, it is called *anumānapūrvikā arthāpatti* (based on inference).

It is noteworthy that Vātsyāyana describes such type of *arthāpatti* (presumption) through the help of *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*.[98] The great sage Gautama says on *anumāna* in his *Nyāya-Sūtra* that there are three sorts of inference viz. *pūrvavat*, *śeṣavat,* and *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa*. The ground of such type of classification of inference is causal uniformity, whether for the *pūrvavat* and *śeṣavat anumāna* the causal uniformity is presented differently. For the *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*, the causal uniformity is absent. Generally, a cause is defined as the invariable and unconditional antecedent of an effect, and an effect is vice-versa. According to Vātsyāyana, the inference by which we infer the unperceived effect from a perceived cause is based on causal uniformity, i.e., *vyāpti* is *pūrvavat anumāna*. For instance, the inference of rain from the appearance of dark and heavy clouds in the sky. The inference by which we infer the unperceived cause from a perceived effect based on causal uniformity is *śeṣavat anumāna*. For instance, the inference of heavy rain from

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[97] Bhāṭṭa, Kumārila. *Ślokavārttika*, Ganganath Jha (Tr.), Sri Satguru Publications, Delhi, 1983, p. 230.

[98] Tarkavāgiś, Mahāmahopādhyāya. Phaṇībhūṣaṇa. *Nyāyadarśana-Vātsyāyana Bhāṣya*, Vol. I, West Bengal State Book Board, Kolkata, 2011, p. 169.

the swift muddy current of the river. Both types of inference are based on causal uniformity which is *vyāpti*.

On the other hand, the inference which is based on experience, not on causal uniformity, is *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*. According to Vātsyāyana, the inference where the object of inference does not become eligible for ordinary perception, incapable of knowing the relation of *vyāpti*, such type of inference is called *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*. For instance, the inference of the movement of the Sun from the different positions of the Sun at long intervals. Such a type of motion of the Sun might not have been perceived by anybody. Here, the inference is wholly based on experience, because, whenever we perceive the movement of the position, we perceive motion also.

Now, what our discussion in this concern is the acceptance of *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*. We have already observed that there is a controversy between the Mīmāṁsakas and the Naiyāyikas regarding the *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*. Because, the knowing process of such type of case is *arthāpatti*, according to Mīmāṁsaka. Actually, *vyāpti* is not possible on experiential cognition. That is why the question of acceptance of *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna* arises. Inferential cognition is based on *vyāpti*. However, where the *vyāpti* cannot be possible, how such cognition is possible through inference. If we closely scrutinize the status of these three types of inference, then we should see that there is a distinction between the first two inferences (*pūrvavat* and *śeṣavat*) and *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa* inference. Because, the *pūrvavat* and the *śeṣavat anumāna* are based on causal uniformity, i.e., *vyāpti*, but, *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna* is not based on *vyāpti*. Therefore, there is no such type of problem arises for the *pūrvavat* and the *śeṣavat anumāna*. However, the problem crops up in the case of the *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*. Hence, the Mīmāṁsakas accept such type of cognition with the help of *arthāpatti*, and it is called *anumānapūrvikā arthāpatti* (based on inference).

2.11.3 *Upamānapūrvikā Arthāpatti*:

The third sort of presumption is *upamānapūrvikā arthāpatti,* which is based on the comparison (*upamāna*). For instance, the assumption of the fact of the comprehensibility of the cow as similar to the *gavaya*, based upon the fact of the cow

having been cognized by analogy to be similar to the *gavaya*, is *upamānapūrvikā arthāpatti*.[99] Here, it is important to note that Mīmāṁsakas accept comparison as an instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) like Naiyāyikas, but the nature of *upamāna* as it is stated by the Mīmāṁsakas is different from that of Naiyāyikas.

According to Naiyāyikas, when someone has the cognition of the word *'gavaya'* but does not have the cognition of such an animal, in that situation, he happens to know from a person living nearby forest that 'cow is similar to *gavaya*'. Subsequently, the person goes to a forest and sees an animal like a cow and recalls the previous knowledge (*atideś vākyārtha jñāna*) and comes to the conclusion that 'this animal is *gavaya*'. Here, the similarity of *gavaya* with a cow is called an instrument of valid cognition (*upamāna*), and the cognition of the fact that this animal is denoted by the word *gavaya* is the cognition of comparison (*upamiti*). However, the Mīmāṁsakas disagree with the Naiyāyikas on this point.

The Mīmāṁsakas state that when a person comes across a *gavaya* in the forest, then actually, he has the perceptual cognition of the similarity of a cow in the *gavaya*. Subsequently, he concludes that the cow is similar to the *gavaya*. According to the Mīmāṁsakas, the cognition of the similarity of *gavaya* in a cow is the *upamiti,* and the cow itself is the object of this cognition called *upamāna* (comparision). The cow is known through *upamāna* due to its power because it lacks the cognition of invariable concomitance, the contact of it with the sense-organ, and also the denotative word. Though the power underlying the cow has been invisible, yet it is known through *arthāpatti* (presumption). Had there been no power in the cow, it would not have been known through comparison. Here, comparison serves as a prior condition to attain the cognition of the cow. Therefore, this sort of presumption is known as *upamānapūrvikā arthāpatti* (based on presumption).

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[99] Bhāṭṭa, Kumārila. *Ślokavārttika*, Ganganath Jha (Tr.), Sri Satguru Publications, Delhi, 1983, p. 230.

2.11.4 *Arthāpattipūrvikā Arthāpatti*:

The fourth sort of presumption is called *arthāpattipūrvikā arthāpatti* (based on presumption), which is the assumption of the expressive power of words. According to Bhāṭṭa, no denotation is possible without expressiveness, and expressiveness could not be possible if the words are not eternal. Word cannot refer to meaning without verbal power. We assume the verbal power in words through *arthāpatti* (presumption). However, this verbal power cannot be produced without the acceptance of the eternity of words. So, the presumption of the eternity of words is *arthāpattipūrvikā arthāpatti*. The argument regarding the eternity of words is that, if words are non-eternal, then it is impossible to produce the meaning of the words after the cognition of words. There is no usual relationship (conjunction, inherence, etc.,) between a word and an object. So, the inexplicability is resolved by the presumption of a peculiar power residing in the word. The meaning of an object cannot be understood without this power. This is called the denotative power (*abhidhā śakti*) of a word. Again, the denotative power of a word can be possible if a word is recognized as eternal. The eternity of words is assumed only by *arthāpatti* (presumption). For example, when a man orders his servant by using the words 'bring the cow' and the servant brings the cow only because he understands the meaning of the words 'bring' and 'cow' used in the sentence through his awareness of the denotative power of the same ('cow' and 'bring'). Thus, it is known through *arthāpatti* (presumption) that the word 'cow' and 'bring' are eternal.

2.11.5 *Abhāvapūrvikā Arthāpatti*:

The fifth sort of presumption is called *abhāvapūrvikā arthāpatti,* which is based on non-apprehension. The non-existence of Caitra in the house is ascertained by non-apprehension, and this is a fact that remains inexplicable without the presumption of Caitra's existence outside the house. Here, the inexplicability lies given by non-apprehension.

2.11.6 *Śrutārthāpatti*:

Śrutārthāpatti differs from the other kinds of *arthāpatti* (presumption) as it is based on verbal testimony. We have already mentioned that the vital difference between *śrutārthāpatti* and *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* is that in the case of *śrutārthāpatti* words are assumed, and in the case of *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* some facts are assumed. We assume the sentence 'Caitra eats during the night' on hearing the sentence 'Caitra who is fat does not eat during the day'. Here, the conflict is between fasting and feasting. To remove such conflict, the hearer assumes the voracious eating of Caitra at night. So, here Caitra's fatness cannot be explained without the assumption that he eats at night. Here the sentence 'he eats at night' is not uttered by the speaker but presumed by the hearer. Another example of *śrutārthāpatti* is that suppose someone utters 'water'. Here, the word 'water' is itself incompleted and it desires to be a verb. The noun cannot be produced in any right sense without a verb. So, in that situation verb is assumed to make complete sense of a noun. That is why the hearer immediately after listening to the word 'water', the hearer assumes the word 'bring'. Unless the hearer assumes the word 'brings', the meaning of the sentence uttered by the speaker cannot be cleared. Here, the assumption of the word 'bring' is called *śrutārthāpatti* by the hearer.

It is important to point out that *śrutārthāpatti* does not denote always the utterance of words to fulfill the proper meaning of what is mentioned by the speaker. Because the dumb persons cannot be uttered. However, dumb persons can express his / her thought through the help of any other mode. Again, the thought of the dumb persons can be inconsistent. In that situation, the assumption of something to reconcile the inconsistency can help to make proper sense. It can be clarified with a help of an instance; a dumb person writes on paper the word 'door' and there is also a rainy day. In that situation, another person saw the written word 'door' and according to the situation, the second person assumes the word 'closed' to close the door. Here, such a type of assumption should be treated as *śrutārthāpatti*. The same can apply to deaf persons also.

A question may be raised: does *śrutārthāpatti* always produce through verbal testimony (*śabda*)? We have already mentioned the five sorts of *dṛṣṭārthāpatti* those

are depended on five sorts of instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*). In the *pratyakṣapūrvikā arthāpatti*, we have mentioned the assumption of burning power in the fire. In this case, the conflict or inconsistency is applied to a perceived fact. However, if someone says that fire burns the paper, then obviously the hearer assumes the word 'power' to reconcile the inconsistency between fire and burning paper. The hearer has also assumed the word 'power' to reconcile the fact. Can we say that such type of *arthāpatti* is *dṛṣṭārthāpatti*, and not a *śrutārthāpatti*? This type of objection may be raised. To stand a position for removing this dilemma, we can say that *arthāpatti* cannot be divided into two definitely. Which type of *arthāpatti* applies can be depended on the situation.

2.12 Observation:

In our preceding discussion on the classification of *arthāpatti*, it is found that Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas emphasize on *śrutārthāpatti* as well as the *dṛṣṭārthāpatti*. This classification of *arthāpatti* shows that Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas give more emphasis upon *śrutārthāpatti*. The verifiability of the authenticity of the *śrutārthāpatti* is only dependent on verbal testimony. Still, in the case of *dṛṣṭārthāpatti*, the authenticity is verified by a specific instrument of valid cognition other than verbal testimony. That is why Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas clearly mention two different sorts of *arthāpatti*. The fundamental issues are about either facts or sentences, which one is the subject of apparent inconsistency. Facts can be known and verified through any of the instruments of valid cognition other than verbal testimony as it is cognized through sentences only. However, a sentence can be known only through verbal cognition as we know sentences only through this instrument of valid cognition. Though indeed, the conflict of a heard sentence is primarily a conflict of fact, and the conflict is resolved through the assumption of another fact, but the conflict of the sentence can be removed only by the assumption of another sentence; in the sense that one cannot resolve the conflict only through the fact without mentioning the corresponding sentence. So, the view of Kumārila is more consistent than that of Prabhākara, in the sense when Kumārila holds that sentences, as well as facts, are necessary for

resolving the conflict between the two. This controversy has been discussed critically in the next chapter of this thesis and given some points to substantiate our view.